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The Emulation of Western Organizations in Meiji Japan: The Case of the Paris Prefecture of Police and the Keishi-chō

Never has any government sent a nation to school, and accompanied it there, with greater efficiency . . . Englishmen organized the navy. Americans created a modern educational system. A Frenchman codified Japanese law. Germans directed the whole of the higher medical education. An Englishman reformed the mint and gave Japan a uniform currency. Posts, telegraphs, the army, the land survey, sanitary reform, prison reform, cotton and paper mills, improved mining methods, harbor works, modern shipping and navigation—all were the creation of foreign advisers.¹

To argue that Japan Westernized and sought replicas of Western models is to misjudge the scope and depth of Japanese modernization . . . Japan modernized in a Japanese way.²

For over a century popular hostility toward Japan in the West has taken the form of caricaturing it as a voracious and parasitic imitator of the West: Byas's statement, made at the height of World War II, provides a more than usually articulate example. Few scholars of Japan would today support such a position: Yamamura's assertion comes much closer to encapsulating the dominant interpretation of Japan's nineteenth century modernization. And yet the fact remains

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1. Hugh Byas, *Government by Assassination* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1942), pp. v–vi.

2. Kozo Yamamura, "Entrepreneurship, Ownership, and Management in Japan," in *The Cambridge Economic History of Europe Volume VII Part 2* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1978), pp. 263–264.

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that in the 1870s and 1880s the Japanese embarked on a program of deliberate emulation of Western institutional models in a wide range of functional areas: schools, courts, police, the banking system, postal services, the army and navy, universities, newspapers, administrative organizations, factories, hospitals, political parties, elected assemblies—the list is almost endless. Much emphasis has rightly been given, especially in economic history, to the importance of Japan's traditional economic and social organization in providing the base for building a modern industrial state, but the structures erected on that base were overwhelmingly organizations adopted from Western models.

Japan was by no means unique in the attempt to emulate the institutions of the dominant Western powers: in the nineteenth century most nonindustrial societies perceived only one path to industrialization. Other nations besides Japan attempted to follow that path—to emulate Western technology and institutions (China and the Ottoman Empire are but two examples). And within the industrial world itself nations which perceived other societies to be more “advanced” in some respects themselves engaged in more limited programs of organizational emulation: the reform of the English army command structure on the model of the German general staff, German emulation of French investment banking, French emulation of the London police model—these are only a few examples. Today in the contemporary Third World the process of organizational emulation continues apace. Despite its ubiquity, however, much less attention has been paid to “organizational transfer” than to the technology transfer for which the organizational processes are so often a necessary condition.

One reason for this is that organizational structures, unlike physical technologies, change in their new environments: emulation becomes either consciously or unconsciously adaptation. Differences between the social environment of the organization which serves as a model and that of the new organization are inevitable: differences in the resources (material and human) available for the organization and differences in the demand for its output mean that the structure and internal processes of the organization must be adjusted to the new environment. Perhaps as a result of the complexity of these processes of adoption and adaptation, studies of social change have tended to concentrate on the outputs of organizations: for example, on rising levels of output per capita, increasing literacy, rising standards of health, increasing centralization. Yet the nature of the organizations powerfully affects both the levels and the nature—the

quantity and the quality—of those outputs. The study of organizational patterns of development is a crucially important element in the analysis of social change.

Meiji Japan provides an excellent forum for exploring such patterns. The creation of a unified state in 1871 marked the beginning of a program of setting up new organizations, based on Western models, in many areas of social, economic, and political life. It therefore provides a case of rapid and many-faceted organizational development that is the more appealing for being extremely well-documented: the new central government, anxious to monitor the progress of its innovations, early adopted a wide-ranging system of record-keeping that allows scholars to trace the development of the new institutions in considerable detail.

This study focuses on one of those institutions: the Tokyo police, which was constructed on the model of the Paris Prefecture of Police. Given the scope of Japanese organization-building in the Meiji period and the array of primary data available, a study focused on one institution and based primarily on official compilations of primary materials and on secondary sources can only scratch the surface. At most it can aspire to raise some new questions and suggest areas for further inquiry in both the study of Meiji Japan and the general analysis of social change. The questions on which the study focuses are: How and why was the specific model for the new organization selected? What features of the model were adopted? What organizational innovations emerged—in other words, how was the organization adjusted to the new social environment? And finally, what was the organization's impact on its social environment?

I. The Selection of the Model

During the Tokugawa period policing *roles* had become specialized and differentiated, but even within the Bakufu specialized general policing *organizations* did not become differentiated from general administrative structures: subordinate policing officials (*yoriki* and *dōshin*) were assigned as needed to various officials, such as the *machi-bugyō* in Edo.³ Consequently the fall of the Bakufu's administrative structures entailed the elimination of existing policing structures. The need to replace them was intensified by the disorders

3. Nihon no keisatsu hensankai, *Nihon no keisatsu* (Nihon no keisatsu hensankai, 1969), pp. 23–25.

attendant on the change of regimes: the problems of looting and theft in a city whose former elite had virtually abandoned their dwellings; the disturbances caused by the sudden influx of triumphant and often disorderly samurai from the victorious domains; the upsurge of anti-foreign activism.

The creation of new structures for maintaining order in the capital was no easy matter: the search for effective policing produced no fewer than four successive structures in the first four years of the Meiji period.⁴ The resort to Western models was by no means immediate; indeed, the first specialized Western-style police organization in Japan was set up not in Tokyo, where the problems of preserving order were most acute, but in Yokohama. There the presence of a substantial foreign community with a very definite idea of what constituted effective policing provided both a demand for specialized police structures and a specific model of police organization. Until 1868 responsibility for policing Yokohama had been assigned to the foreign community, within which the English were numerically dominant, and the Japanese police organization which succeeded to this responsibility in 1868 adopted the English model of organization, drill, patrolling system, and weaponry which had characterized its predecessor.⁵

The Yokohama police provided an important model for the first Western-style police in Tokyo, the *rasotsu* system, formally set up in December of 1871. Indeed, in May 1872, the emulation of the Yokohama model extended to the adoption of the Yokohama police regulations by the Tokyo force virtually in toto.⁶

Perhaps equally important, the predecessors of the *rasotsu* provided a powerful negative model. The forces which had patrolled the capital since the Restoration had proven less than satisfactory: they were plagued both by problems of coordination and control among the various domain troops which made up the units of the force and by problems of discipline among samurai more conscious of their

4. Initially the new government attempted to hold in place the Tokugawa policing structures of the office of the *machi-bugyō*. These were soon found inadequate, and were replaced by the *Hanpei*, troops of samurai from twelve domains. In January, 1869, these were in turn replaced by the *Fu-hei*, 1,500 samurai from forty-one domains, under domain authority; different domain detachments patrolled designated areas of the city. Late that year jurisdiction over these men was transferred from the domains to Tokyo-fu. On December 5, 1871, the *Rasotsu* system was established as Tokyo's first Western-style police.

5. Yokohama shi, *Yokohama shi shi* 3 (Yokohama shi, 1961), pp. 27–33.

6. *Ibid.*, p. 37.

social status than of their organizational roles. Therefore in the *rasotsu* system, strict discipline and centralized control were major considerations in structure. The *rasotsu* were recruited largely from among the samurai, but the enforcement of strict control over role performance necessitated the replacement of the traditional social identity of the samurai with a strong and powerful organizational identity. The *rasotsu* were housed in barracks and their lives strictly regulated. They had to wear uniforms or Western dress at all times (even, it is noted in institutional histories, to and from the *o-furo*). They were forbidden to consume alcohol on or off duty except on the five major festival days of the year.⁷ Most significant, they were not allowed to wear the ubiquitous badge of samurai identity, the sword (which at that time was still publicly worn by the samurai).

Initially the *rasotsu*, in keeping with the English model on which they were based, were under the jurisdiction of the Tokyo prefectural government. Ten months after their establishment, however, they were transferred to the control of the central Justice Ministry, as part of the program of building a centralized national system of law, courts, and police. Two weeks after that transfer, the Justice Ministry dispatched to Europe a group of eight young members of the Ministry to study legal systems, the courts, penal systems, and the police. The group visited France, Belgium, Germany, Russia, Austria, and Italy, and the report submitted on its return is seen as the basis for the creation of a modern police system in Japan, largely on the French model: jurisdiction over the police was placed under a newly created Home Ministry, and a virtually autonomous police organization on the Paris model was established for the capital city. The head of this new Tokyo police system was a member of the mission and a former officer of the *rasotsu*, a Satsuma samurai named Kawaji Toshiyoshi, whose role in drafting the mission's report and his subsequent supervision of the establishment of the Keishi-chō earned him the title of "the father of the Japanese police."⁸

This fits the dominant image of Japanese institutional change in the early Meiji period: the systematic examination of available mod-

7. Accounts of police barracks life contain plaintive stories of the entire barracks, officers and men, standing anxiously beside their barrels of sake waiting for midnight to usher in the festival. See for example Tanaka Tetsuo, *Keishi-chō monogatari: mitsuwa hyakunen* (Kasumigaseki shuppankai, 1974), p. 41.

8. Keishi-chō shi hensan iinkai, *Keishi-chō shi: Meiji-hen* (Keishi-chō shi hensan iinkai, 1959), p. 46. (Hereafter cited as KSC.)

els and the selection of the one most suited to Japan; as William Whyte has described the Meiji period, contrasting it with the patterns in today's Third World:

Japanese imitation was really highly selective. Japanese change agents examined models from various more "advanced" countries and selected in terms of their judgment of what would best fit into Japan.⁹

Such interpretations accept at face value the claims of Japanese decision-makers that the choices they were making were best for Japan and maximally compatible with the Japanese context. In the environment of the early Meiji period, where xenophobic opposition to emulating the West was strong and constituted a pervasive threat to the lives of prominent advocates of Western-style institutions, and where even among some government leaders there was reluctance to accept the rapid introduction of such institutions, these claims were necessary attempts at legitimation. Acceptance by contemporary scholars of such legitimations, however, begs important questions of how the criteria for assessing alternatives were defined and what information, gathered by whom, shaped the assessments.

The case of the police suggests strongly that the process of selecting a model was, if not less rational than the image presented by Whyte and by the Meiji leaders themselves, at least considerably more complex. There are at least two indications that the model had been chosen before the Justice Ministry's mission left Japan: those were the choice of an interpreter and the group's itinerary. The member of the party selected for his foreign language skills was Numa Moriichi, a former Bakufu retainer who had worked with French military advisers and was presumed to speak French.¹⁰ Moreover, of the ten months the group actually spent in Europe, slightly more than four months was spent in Paris, and one month each in Brussels and Berlin. The rest appears to have been little more than sight-seeing. Most striking of all, England, which had provided the principal model for the police in the treaty ports and indirectly for the Tokyo *rasotsu*, was omitted from the itinerary altogether.

9. William F. Whyte, "Imitation or Innovation: Reflections on the Institutional Development of Peru," in *Administrative Science Quarterly* 13-3 (December 1968), p. 372.

10. When the mission actually arrived in France, it quickly became apparent that Numa's French was largely confined to military drill terms, and was hardly adequate for getting the party around Paris, let alone for the tasks set for them.

One factor shaping the selection of the model was of course the range of perceived alternatives. Police systems in the West have conventionally been divided into those based on the "Continental" model and those based on the "Anglo-Saxon" model. The Continental model performs a wide range of administrative functions (such as recording population movements, supervising commercial establishments, sanitation and health functions) and is characterized by a high degree of involvement in political surveillance and control. Systems of this type are highly centralized, with a low level of local influence. Precisely these features made the Continental model a powerful negative model for the later-developing Anglo-Saxon model, which is decentralized, performs a more limited range of functions, and is at least ideally to be prevented from political involvement or surveillance.¹¹

Japanese leaders in the Meiji period were less likely than those in the United States or Britain to regard the characteristics of the Continental model with distaste. For men who saw as one of the critical domestic problems of the new regime the legacy of localism generated by centuries of feudalism, the centralization of the Continental model had a powerful appeal. Moreover, its multi-functional nature was very attractive to leaders in a society which was only beginning to construct a modern administrative system and in which a standardized local government structure had not yet been framed even on paper. Finally, the role of the Continental police in political surveillance and control made it far more attractive in an era of widespread anti-government activism than the more circumscribed Anglo-Saxon model.

Preference rooted in function was reinforced by the nature of the information on which the choice was made: among the Continental systems (all of which were visited, however briefly, by the Justice Ministry mission), the information available before the mission's departure was heavily biased toward the French model. The first published reference to Western police organizations uncovered by Japanese police historians is an 1868 travel journal which described the Paris police and praised highly both their usefulness and their public image.¹² Somewhat more systematic information was circu-

11. J. J. Tobias, "Police and public in the United Kingdom" in George L. Mosse, ed., *Police Forces in History* (Beverly Hills: Sage Publications, Inc., 1975), pp. 95-101; see also W. L. Melville Lee, *A History of the Police in England* (Montclair, N.J.: Patterson Smith, 1971), pp. 246-7.

12. KSC, pp. 21-22.

lated in the following year, when one of the Councillors in the central government asked the seemingly ubiquitous Fukuzawa Yukichi to prepare a report on Western police systems. His report, which described the French, English, and American systems (the first at greatest length) was widely circulated among central and prefectural officials.¹³ The French model was thus seen as the principal representative of the Continental model, and the most prestigious: the international reputation of the French police, especially the Paris force, was probably unequalled in the world at that time. They were the oldest, the most effectively centralized, and the most effective at “preventive” policing.

The selection of the model was strongly influenced by a “contagion effect”: the utilization of the French model in other institutional areas. France had already been selected as the model for the army, the primary school system, and the courts and the legal system. As a result, decision-makers in the government were already building up information on French organizational structures and opening systematic channels of communication with French institutions. Police jurisdiction rested with the same Ministry that had selected France as the model for its courts and legal codes; the Ministry of Justice naturally tended to favor the same model for such a closely related organization as the police. This tendency was reinforced by the ready availability of information through channels already developed. The most significant of these appears to have been DuBousquet, one of the French advisers consulted in the early attempts to draft a set of legal codes. Early in 1872 he gave a series of lectures in the Ministry on French judicial and administrative police.¹⁴ Of the available Continental models, then, the existing patterns of information favored the adoption of the French system.

The adoption of the model was extremely rapid: three months after the Justice Ministry mission returned from Europe, the Keishi-chō was established in Tokyo, on January 15, 1874.

II. The Emulation of the Model

The first head of the Keishi-chō, Kawaji Toshiyoshi, was the only member of the new organization to have any first-hand experience of the model on which it was based. He himself spoke no French at all, and given the inadequacies of his own and indeed of

13. *Nihon no keisatsu*, pp. 56–7.

14. Takahashi Yūzo, *Meiji keisatsu shi kenkyū 4 Zempo* (Sōbunsha, 1972) p. 23.

the entire mission's language skills, one would expect the scope of his four-months' observation of the Paris police to be severely limited. In fact, whether because he had a practitioner's eye for police organization or because of a back-up reliance on translated materials, a significant number of the features of the Paris Prefecture of Police was incorporated into the new Keishi-chō.

In Kawaji's formal report, submitted on his return, the most detailed information centered on two features of the police: financing and the control structure (the jurisdiction over the police by other administrative structures). These aspects of the organization, being both highly formalized and readily accessible to inquiry, were those most easily observed. They were also the aspects of greatest concern to the government leaders to whom the report was addressed. The report's audience was not composed of prospective organization members, but of those who would have the tasks of fitting the organization into the emerging state structures and mobilizing financial resources for it.

Paris provided the model for both these aspects of the Keishi-chō. The burden of financial support was largely assumed by the central government; government leaders were apparently convinced by Kawaji's arguments (undoubtedly acquired in Paris) that the policing of the national capital was a matter of national security that could not be entrusted to the vagaries of short-sighted penny-pinching local officials. In keeping with this view of local government, the Keishi-chō, following the example not only of Paris but of all major European capitals, was placed directly under the jurisdiction of the central rather than the municipal government. Following the Paris pattern, the head of the Keishi-chō was made directly responsible to the Home Minister. One further aspect of the relations between the Paris model and its regulatory organization was described in Kawaji's report and emulated by the Keishi-chō: the Paris Prefect of Police reported regularly and personally to the chief minister of the government on political policing and security matters.

Perhaps more significantly, the Keishi-chō also emulated the broad range of functions performed by the Paris police, including the enforcement of public health regulations; the licensing and regulation of prostitution; the supervision of a wide range of commercial activities such as pawnshops, second-hand shops, theaters, inns, the sale of "dangerous materials" such as gunpowder, swords, and firearms; the carrying out of regular population counts; the surveillance of "dangerous" individuals; the enforcement of press supervi-

sion; and the supervision of public morals. The Tokyo police also adopted the Paris police power of administering fines and limited terms of imprisonment to violators of a large number of police regulations, from those proscribing littering to offenses against public morals (which in Tokyo in early Meiji included short hair for women). Like its Paris counterpart, the Keishi-chō also controlled the city's Fire Department and administered its jails.

The result was a powerful and virtually autonomous organization that like its model played a central role in the life of the national capital and had close ties to the central government. The description of the Paris Prefecture of Police penned by one prominent historian could apply equally well to the Keishi-chō:

The Prefect of Police ruled a centralized domain that in many respects was a microcosm of the national administrative system—a "government within a government," according to one Prefect of Police.¹⁵

In choosing the Paris model, therefore, the Japanese government selected a model in which policing functions were not clearly differentiated from local administrative and military functions. The lack of such differentiation had been one characteristic of the Tokugawa period, and one of the effects of the Paris model was to perpetuate and indeed legitimate a continued low level of differentiation. Kawaji's report made special mention of the military functions, as he saw them, of the European police:

Although the normal duty of the police constables is to serve as the police of the judicial districts, unavoidably they must shoulder fire-arms and act as soldiers. Therefore weapons are kept ready in the Police Bureau in every country. Confronting all circumstances, it is necessary to restore order through the power of the police. To employ the army needlessly is a disgrace. Therefore in cases of uprisings and violence in the provinces the Police must have the power to mobilize a number of men.¹⁶

The large administrative role of the Keishi-chō is explicable in part by the slow development of a modern bureaucratic system of municipal administration in Tokyo. In 1880, for example, when the Keishi-chō had a force of 4,400 men, the sum total of prefectural, city, and local officials in Tokyo-fu was only 912; it was not until the

15. Howard Payne, *The Police State of Louis Napoleon Bonaparte, 1851–1860* (Seattle: University of Washington Press, 1966), p. 20.

16. KCS, p. 39.

second decade of the twentieth century that the number of prefec-tural and municipal officials equalled the number of police. But the Paris model proved important in the early years as a legitimation of the Keishi-chō's active attempts to broaden its administrative role,¹⁷ and may itself have contributed to the slow development of municipal administration in the capital.

The Keishi-chō's impact on Tokyo was considerable, and intensified by the fact that the Paris police apparently provided the standard for the size of the new organization. When Kawaji visited Paris, its force of *agents de police* stood at 6,800 men;¹⁸ it was no doubt with this in mind that he proposed on his return that the Tokyo police should have 6,000 patrolmen. This was duly authorized, despite the fact that Tokyo had a population of about 900,000 at the time, compared with Paris's nearly two million. In consequence Tokyo was considerably more heavily policed: there were 6.67 policemen per 1,000 people in Tokyo in 1876, compared with 3.04 per 1,000 in Paris.

One further aspect of the Paris model was closely emulated and it was one of considerable complexity: the functional differentiation between the administrative and the judicial police. One scholar of the nineteenth century French police has described the system thus:

Administrative police embraced the general surveillance of society and the maintenance of public order and security. The judiciary police function dealt with the full investigation of offenses and the prosecution of their authors before the proper courts, in the name of the executive power. Inevitably, the two functions overlapped. But the theoretical distinction [was] important in police theory and practice from the Revolution to the present day.¹⁹

Kawaji's report distinguished between the two not in terms of the functions each performed (which he may well have thought self-explanatory) but in terms of the control structure: the administrative police were under the jurisdiction of the Ministry of the Interior; the judicial police were under the jurisdiction of the Justice Ministry.

The appeal of this apparently complex system is readily understandable in the context of the early Meiji competition among the emerging administrative structures. Kawaji was proposing to move

17. Oikata Sumio, "Nihon kindai kokka ni okeru keisatsu ryoku no keisei," in *Rekishigaku Kenkyū* 470 (July, 1970), pp. 19–27.

18. France, Direction de travail, *Annuaire Statistique de la France 1879* (Paris: Imprimerie Nationale, 1879), p. 77.

19. Payne, *The Police State of Louis Napoleon Bonaparte*, p. 5.

the chief jurisdiction over the Tokyo police, and the national Police Bureau, from the Justice Ministry (whose concern with the police had been subordinated to the compilation of law codes and the establishment of the court system) to a new Home Ministry, in which the police would be a more predominant concern and which would broaden the scope of the police well beyond the role envisioned for them by the officials of the Justice Ministry. Adoption of the French system would ensure that the Justice Ministry would retain control over the police functions of greatest concern to them (thereby undercutting opposition to the plan) while transferring the center of police operations to the new Ministry.

The political advantages were, however, accompanied by organizational disadvantages which emerged more clearly later in the development of the Japanese police. As Payne pointed out,

On the surface, the nineteenth century French police seems complex and unwieldy However, these divisions were sharper in theory than in practice.²⁰

However, such “practice,” evolved over time to deal with problems contained in the formal structure, is much more difficult to emulate than the articulated formal “theory.” And even in France, “practice” often failed to resolve the problems:

This mixed police system, full of overlapping jurisdictions and procedures which blurred many neat theoretical distinctions nurtured countless occasions for administrative conflict. Built into the system, such conflict often smouldered and occasionally flared openly.²¹

Why did the Japanese leaders adopt such a complex system? Were the political advantages of satisfying both the old and the new controllers of the police system so great as to outweigh the problems?

What is more likely is that four months of observation in Paris were not sufficient to enable Kawaji to see the problems that existed behind the “fine theoretical distinctions” of which French police administrators were so proud. Moreover, the areas of conflict were least noticeable in Paris, where control of all police functions was uniquely unified under the Prefect of Police. In other words, imperfect information, in the sense of information on the formal system but not the informal, may have played some role in the emulation of this particular aspect of the Paris model.

20. *Ibid.*, p. 24.

21. *Ibid.*, p. 25.

It is surprising that the effects of “imperfect information” are not more marked: Kawaji was the only member of the Keishi-chō to have any first-hand experience of the Paris model. And the Keishi-chō stands out as one of the few new organizations in the Meiji period which employed virtually no foreigners. The extent to which information on foreign models was acquired through foreign advisers was in part determined by the initiatives of the organization’s leaders, and Kawaji was not a man to feel comfortable with foreigners. He had none of the background in administrative posts in the open ports or in international negotiations which provided such figures as Itō Hirobumi, Mutsu Munemitsu, and Maejima Hisoka with experience in dealing with foreigners. The only foreign adviser employed by the Keishi-chō was a Frenchman, a resident of Japan who must have recommended himself to Kawaji more for his ability to speak Japanese than for his professional expertise: his background was in law, not police practice.²² On the other hand, the Keishi-chō continuously monitored European systems, Paris in particular, through written materials. An 1877 regulation formalized what was already routine practice: the Records Section was ordered to obtain and translate materials of the European police on a regular basis.²³

Some change toward the Paris model occurred as a result of this monitoring, such as the institution of special cash rewards for meritorious performance. The most dramatic example was of relatively short duration: in 1877 the Keishi-chō took over, in effect, the responsibility for policing the entire country. The model for this move was an identical measure taken in the French police three years previously: to cope with the inadequate policing systems outside the capital, the Paris Prefect of Police was entrusted with the direction of all the French police between June 1874 and February 1876. The Tokyo police retained control for almost twice as long, but the institutional pattern was identical.

III. Departures from the Model: Nature and Source of Innovations

When the formal model is far removed from the emerging organization (removed both by geography and language in the case of the new Meiji organizations), certain aspects of the organization may not be covered by the information obtained. Some other aspects

22. KCS, pp. 116–117.

23. Takahashi, *Meiji keisatsu shi kenkyū* 4, p. 115.

may be inadequate to perform the assigned tasks in the new environment; others may be so unfamiliar that they are rejected out of hand or modified soon after their introduction. Still others may be impossible to sustain because of the inadequacy of the resources in the new environment. The innovations which result are strongly influenced by patterns prevailing in other organizations in the immediate social environment, particularly in those which the new organization is superceding; in those which are dominant in its immediate environment; or in those from which it draws its needed resources, particularly personnel.

Among the critical needs of the new organization are large numbers of middle and low-ranking members. Most are recruited from other organizations in whose patterns they have been socialized (it is highly unlikely that all members can be recruited without such previous organizational experience), and they are often drawn into the new organization because in tasks or in membership it is in some way familiar to them. This means that many either will be recruited directly from the social structures whose functions are being taken over, or will have direct observational experience of them; these new members will tend to define the new organizational patterns in the more accessible terms of the old. Therefore these preceding structures are influential informal models for the new organization, and the more members are drawn from any one organization, the more powerful a model its patterns provide.

This can clearly be seen in the Keishi-chō. The bulk of its membership at all levels was drawn from its immediate predecessor, the *rasotsu* system discussed earlier. The tight controls on individual role performance, the pervasive discipline, and the all-encompassing definition of the policeman's role were carried into the new force, giving the Keishi-chō a much more tightly disciplined organization with more strongly coercive internal controls than the Paris model.

Another organization that strongly influenced the Tokyo police was a predecessor of both the *rasotsu* and the Keishi-chō, one in which most of the members of both had received their earliest organizational socialization: the samurai bureaucracy of the Edo period. One distinctive feature to emerge in the Tokyo police seems attributable to the samurai legacy: the emphasis on public education and improvement as major tasks of the police organization. Kawaji in his first regulations likened the public to children and proclaimed one of the central functions of the police to be the guidance and enlightenment of the people in the ways of civilization.²⁴ The publi-

24. KCS, p. 51.

cation of books and pamphlets (often illustrated) to educate the public in the new laws and regulations, and the work of the police in disseminating information about the public health regulations are the more laudable aspects of this legacy; the often-criticized high-handedness and arrogance of the police towards the citizens of Tokyo are the less attractive features.

Chief among the organizations supplying resources for the emerging Tokyo police was of course the government bureaucracy. Its influence on the Keishi-chō is most obvious in its internal administrative structure: a function-based division into departments, subdivided into sections in ordered tiers, with a clear line of authority running through section heads to department heads to the head of the organization. The terminology and the levels, the systematic hierarchy of offices, and the clearly defined divisions are those of a Japanese government ministry, not those of the Paris Prefecture of Police, which one authority describes as “a large number of branches, divisions, sections, commissions, and committees grouped irregularly about the Prefect of Police each sustaining to him a more or less direct relationship.”²⁵

The influence of the government bureaucracy on police administration was reinforced by the integration of the Keishi-chō into the central government administration, on a scale unimagined in Paris. The administrative ranks of the Keishi-chō were assigned central civil service rankings, and those who achieved the higher positions often rose further into the general bureaucracy, especially the Home Ministry. For example, of the twelve heads of the Keishi-chō who survived the demands of the post (two died in office and one shortly after), four subsequently rose to become Cabinet Ministers, and another four to become prefectural governors. The incumbents of the top post are of course the most systematically traceable; but the upper levels of the administration of the Keishi-chō exhibited similar patterns of mobility. The integration of the Keishi-chō with the prestigious civil service and the opportunities for upward mobility this presented were factors in attracting ambitious and able young men into the force. The first Tokyo Imperial University graduates joined the Keishi-chō in 1893, long before police forces were drawing on the universities in France, Germany, or the United Kingdom.

However, the most powerful single alternative model for the Tokyo police was provided by the Japanese army. The military has been a major influence on police organizations in most societies,

25. Raymond B. Fosdick, *European Police Systems* (New York: The Century Co., 1915), p. 127.

even in England, where one of the two founders of the London police was an army man. But the impact was particularly marked in Japan.

Kawaji himself explicitly drew an analogy between the role of the army and the navy as the guardians of Japan's outer security and the police of its internal security.²⁶ The analogy certainly seemed justified in view of the early tasks of the Tokyo police. Detachments were dispatched from the Keishi-chō to take active roles in subduing the rebellions that flared in Japan in the 1870s, and in these encounters the police worked side by side with the new army. Moreover, since the Tokyo police were recruited largely from the samurai class, they had a strong tendency to regard themselves as truer inheritors of the Japanese military tradition than the commoner soldiers of the new conscript army, a fact which actually led to brawls between policemen and soldiers in the early years of the Tokyo police.²⁷ The Tokyo police continued to identify themselves with an heroic military heritage: when the Sino-Japanese War broke out in 1894 the Keishi-chō petitioned the army command for authorization to send a police detachment to the front—a request that was indignantly refused by the generals.²⁸

Moreover, during its early years many of the top-ranking officials of the Keishi-chō were recruited from the army: four of the first six heads of the organization were active army officers prior to their appointment. The early cooperation in certain tasks between the army and the police, the military background of the samurai recruits, and the bringing of army personnel into top administrative posts all meant that access to information on military organizational structure was readily available in the new Keishi-chō. In addition, the army constituted a dominant feature of the immediate social environment of the emerging police structure: it was the first large-scale, multi-unit organization to be set up in Japan on an explicitly Western model.

The influence of the military model on the Keishi-chō was apparent from its inception. The uniforms selected were of a deliberately military cut and were issued for all ranks of police from the Chief Superintendent down. Thus the Keishi-chō was a uniformed organization, in contrast with the Paris police where upper-ranking officers and administrators wore plain clothes. Military drills were standard procedure in the Keishi-chō from its inception.

26. KCS, p. 51.

27. Tanaka, *Keishi-chō monogatari*, p. 38.

28. *Ibid.*, pp. 36–37.

The impact of the army model went well beyond such superficial features. The most significant impact was in the formal training of police officers and patrolmen, where Japan was ahead of the Western countries whose structure it was emulating in other respects. The first training school for patrolmen—both new recruits and those already in the force—was established in Tokyo in 1880 to provide training in law and police procedure.²⁹ This was three years before the first such facility was established in Paris, and Paris was the leader in the West. Even then the Paris school was not a full-time training program; attendance was interspersed with regular duties.

Specialized formal training for officers was also well in advance of any such facilities in the West. The Keikan Renshūjo (Police Officers' Training Institute) was set up by the Home Ministry in 1884 to provide training in law, police procedure, and English. Although this was not simply a Tokyo training facility but a national one, preference was given to Keishi-chō officers: three times as many were admitted as from any other prefecture.

This would seem to be an example of what Ronald Dore has called the "late-developer effect," whereby societies which are latecomers to the technological and organizational patterns of the "advanced" countries emphasize formal education more than do the societies in which those patterns evolved. This may well be a factor in the early development of police training, but the emulation of the military model seems to have been the more powerful influence. When Tokyo's school was established, the head of the Keishi-chō was a general whose previous post had been the head of the army's Military Academy. This reinforced the general power of the military model which made it a natural resource when Tokyo police officials, faced with serious reductions of manpower in the late 1870s, were concerned to ensure higher capability and reliability within the force. Yamagata Aritomo was the man who first proposed the establishment of the Keikan Renshūjo and of police training schools in all prefectures. He explicitly invoked the model of the military

29. The Tokyo school was closed after a year and a half; with the 1881 reinstitution of separate administrative structures for the Tokyo and the prefectural police and the establishment of the Keimeitai, the permitted strength of the Keishi-chō was considerably reduced, and suddenly, from facing a situation of inadequate supplies of skilled and experienced policemen, the Keishi-chō was confronted with a surplus. Both this and the reduction of the Keishi-chō's budget led to the closing of the school. Its significance was considerable, however; schools on the Tokyo model were quickly set up in some other prefectures, and the precedent was a factor in the 1884 decision of the Naimusho to order all prefectures to set up police training schools.

academies, with which he, as the architect of the modern Japanese army, was intimately acquainted.

The army's impact on the police was significant in still another respect. Police organizations in different societies (and at different times) vary in the extent to which they are "total institutions." The prototypes of the total institution are the jail and the army: organizations which insulate their members from the surrounding environment and in which organizational roles are all-encompassing and organizational identity shapes most aspects of social life. The police, being obliged by their tasks to interact with the public, can never be so completely insulated as the military, but the stronger the military influence, the more closely police organization approaches the model of the total institution. The advantage of such an organization lies in the effectiveness of its internal control; the chief disadvantage is pronounced slowness to respond to changes in the social environment.

The relatively greater insulation of the *Keishi-chō* from the environment was reinforced by another factor which distinguished it from the Paris police. The first professional policeman to become Prefect of Police in Paris was appointed in 1913; prefects had theretofore been "professional administrators, soldiers, politicians, or lawyers."³⁰ The recruitment pattern of those who served as the head of the *Keishi-chō* presents a striking contrast. Not surprisingly the first men to head the organization were brought in from outside: so young an organization could not be expected to generate men with the seniority to assume its leadership. Four of the first six men to follow Kawaji in the top were military men and two were bureaucrats. But between 1891, when the first head of the organization to have risen through the police hierarchy was appointed, and the end of the Meiji period, men without a professional police background served in the post for slightly less than four of the twenty-one years.³¹

30. Philip John Stead, *The Police of Paris* (London: Staples Press, 1957), p. 153.

31. This pattern changed radically after the Meiji Period, as the *Keishi-chō* followed the pattern set by the higher civil service in general. From 1914 to 1927, all of the eight men who served as head of the *Keishi-chō* were graduates of Tokyo Imperial University; all but one (the oldest) then passed the Higher Civil Service Examination and entered prefectural administration in the Home Ministry. All subsequently became *keibu-chō*, the top position in prefectural police administration, and then Governor in various prefectures before becoming *Keishi-sōkan*. None of the eight was from Kagoshima. By the Taishō era, however, the organizational patterns of the *Keishi-chō* were substantially set, and the organization was actually run by the professional *Keishi-chō* administrators.

Still another factor reinforced the insulation of the Keishi-chō: the preference in recruitment given to Satsuma men. This pattern was inherited from the *rasotsu*, two-thirds of whom had been Satsuma samurai, but it continued throughout the Meiji period and beyond. The continuing predominance of Satsuma recruits led to the saying among Keishi-chō patrolmen that in order to make it in the Tokyo police one had to speak Satsuma dialect.³²

The pattern of systematic bias in recruitment toward a certain social group was not unique to the Japanese police; most urban police forces in the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries recruited substantially from groups outside the social environment in which they were to function. In Great Britain, for example, the London bobbies were largely recruited from the agricultural counties. The rationale for such selective recruitment varied from society to society, but the fundamental justification was always the same: such men made better policemen, and whatever the particular explanations devised, the real reason they did so was that they were outsiders to the social environment in which they functioned. This enhanced their commitment to the organization and their responsiveness to organizational directives by minimizing conflicting obligations.

What was unusual about the Tokyo basis for recruitment was that it was identical with that for filling the top posts. Satsuma men dominated the hierarchy of the Keishi-chō throughout the Meiji period. In the forty-one years between the founding of the Keishi-chō and 1915, the top position in the Tokyo police hierarchy was occupied by non-Satsuma men for less than six and a half years in total. As late as 1893, when the first Tokyo University graduates entered the force, they were warned by their friends that they were throwing away their careers: only Satsuma men could hope to rise in the Keishi-chō.³³

The commonality of origin between the rank-and-file and the top officers of the Keishi-chō strengthened the solidarity and organizational identity of police officials in Tokyo. It also strongly identified the police organization with the orientations of the leadership in the central government, and with those of the Satsuma faction in particular. The Satsuma faction was the dominant domain faction in the Meiji government, at least in terms of numbers. The institutional implications of this for the police—the potential for close informal

32. Tanaka, *Keishi-chō monogatari*, p. 65.

33. *Ibid.*, p. 66.

ties linking the police with the organizations formally charged with controlling it and allocating its resources, and with organizations with potential interests in directing certain police functions, particularly political policing and surveillance—are difficult to document. However, one implication is clear: the public identification of the Tokyo police with one side in the ‘hanbatsu politics’ of the Meiji period and with the Satsuma faction’s orientation to control and repression made the police a target of increasing resentment and criticism from the press, politicians, and the public as the Meiji period unfolded.

For at least one major aspect of organizational structure, the initial emulation of the Paris model proved impossible to sustain: spatial dispersion, meaning the number of organizational subunits and the pattern of their distribution. In policing, the visibility of the police is important in determining their capacity for ‘preventive’ policing, and accessibility to all areas of the city shapes the speed of their response to problems; both factors are largely determined by the pattern of spatial dispersion. When Kawaji visited Paris there were two levels of police posts below the central headquarters. Their number was determined by the number of traditional administrative divisions in the city. The Paris system had eighty-nine police stations, of which twenty functioned as district headquarters. Two tiers of police posts were also set up initially in Tokyo, but the districts were based on those used for the *rasotsu* system, and the configuration differed considerably from the Paris model: although Tokyo established much the same number of base-level posts as in Paris (89 were actually set up by the end of 1874), there were only six district headquarters. Therefore the burden of supervision on those headquarters was much heavier than in Paris, and this is the most likely reason for the early modification of the system: a third tier of police posts was added by the end of the Keishi-chō’s first year, and supervisory duties were delegated to the second tier of police headquarters. The third tier consisted of the police boxes: small stations to each of which twelve patrolmen were assigned. By 1877 there were 422 of them.³⁴ Although their number and official terminology changed over the period, this departure from the Paris pattern to one with a much greater degree of spatial dispersion came to be a characteristic feature of Japanese police organization.

None of the standard Japanese police histories offer an explanation of the emergence of this pattern: perhaps it has been so continu-

34. KCS, p. 170.

ous a feature of the Japanese police system that scholars do not see it as needing explanation. But some factors in its emergence can be suggested. The police box system is a consolidation of the beat system, a dominant feature of police organization in Paris and other European cities. In Europe, patrolmen were assigned to fixed beats, which they patrolled for extended assignments (often several years) to enable them to become familiar with a given area and its inhabitants. The Japanese system maintained such beats, but the police boxes positioned auxiliary forces much closer to the patrolling officer, and the police box itself became a neighborhood institution. This was a pattern better suited to a city such as Tokyo in which rapid movement was notoriously difficult, given the narrow and winding streets without a grid pattern and the absence of major transportation axes. It was also suited to a jurisdiction which was more spread out and in which population was (at that time) less densely concentrated. A further factor may well have been that this pattern provided more direct supervision and control of the individual policeman by his immediate superiors, perhaps necessary in a newer and more unfamiliar organization.

Both this greater spatial dispersion and the timing of police development were factors in making the Keishi-chō more responsive to new communications technology than its Paris model. The Paris Prefecture of Police had taken shape well before the communications revolution of the second half of the nineteenth century, and was relatively slow to utilize the new technologies: not until 1885 were the Paris police stations connected by telegraph.³⁵ Until then communications among stations were carried by messenger; the limitations of such a system were apparently not critical for an organization with a relatively low degree of spatial dispersion and covering a limited area. The Keishi-chō, on the other hand, emerged virtually simultaneously with the introduction of the telegraph, and by 1876 the headquarters was linked to each of the stations in the next tier by telegraph. The pattern of communication made possible by the telegraph was one which reinforced the organizational hierarchy: that is, each station was linked to that immediately superior to it and those immediately below it, but not laterally to the stations on the same tier of authority. At the top of the hierarchy stood the Keishi-chō headquarters, connected to all police posts down to the lowest tier by 1891, and located in the heart of Tokyo, a few streets away from the Imperial Palace.

35. Stead, *The Police of Paris*, p. 145.

The Keishi-chō was not, however, drawn to modern weapons technology. In contrast to the heavily armed French police, the Tokyo police throughout the Meiji period did not carry firearms on regular duty. In 1882, the right to wear a sword was extended to patrolmen as well as officers, but the stringent restrictions on drawing the sword meant that the police relied primarily on the baton as a weapon. In this the one lingering influence of the English-inspired Yokohama police can be traced.

The case of the Tokyo police suggests that in the processes of organizational emulation one can identify three categories of organizational features: those which are adopted from the formal model; those which are departures from the model adopted from other organizations in the immediate environment; and those which are innovations not attributable to another model. The specific features of each type in the Keishi-chō are summarized here in the form of a chart.

Those features adopted from the formal model are most likely to be those seen as definitionally part of the concept of that organization: its tasks and its relationships to other organizations in the environment. Those most likely to be adopted from other organizations in the immediate environment are those internal characteristics having to do with organizational careers, status differentiation, and internal control structures prevailing in higher status organizations dominant in the environment, especially those whose functions are related to or are being in part superseded by the new organization. Finally, innovations in organizational patterns are most likely to emerge from those features which are intrinsically related to the distinctive tasks of the organization and yet for which the environment does not provide sufficient resources for the straightforward emulation of the formal model or for which the environment presents conditions markedly different from those present in the environment of the model.

To what extent were the early architects of the Keishi-chō conscious of the extent of their departure from European models and of the degree of innovation involved? A few features, principally the nature of the career ladders and the more "rational" pattern of bureaus and offices, were not recognized as departures, for two reasons: first, relatively little information on the Paris patterns in those areas was available, and second, these were such pervasive features of early Meiji government organization that their incorporation into the Keishi-chō was virtually automatic. Most of the departures from the Paris patterns, however, were clearly recognized as

PRINCIPAL ORGANIZATIONAL FEATURES OF THE KEISHI-CHŌ

Emulated from Paris	Emulated from other Organizations (Source)	Innovations
Acquisition of resources (financing)	Control of individual role performance (rasotsu)	Upper-level career patterns
Formal-regulatory structure	Orientation to public educations (samurai)	Spatial dispersion
Political role of Chief	Vertical administrative unit differentiation (government bureaucracy)	Utilization of new communications technology
Functions	Training and education (army)	
Size	Informal recruitment criteria (rasotsu)	
Formal role differentiation	Weaponry (England via Yokohama)	
Specialization of administrative divisions		

such; they were regarded not as innovations that might be of interest to Western societies or as reasons for pride, but as necessary concessions to the backwardness of Japanese society. This view is exemplified by the explanation of the introduction of formal police training put forward in the article on the police in Okuma Shigenobu's 1910 volume, *Fifty Years of New Japan*:

In 1881 an Imperial edict was issued to the effect that the constitutional form of government would be adopted in 1890, and it became necessary to improve the system of police education in such a way as to make it compare with the system of Western nations by providing all forms of instruction or training which were deemed indispensable for a constitutional country. With this in view, a police training school was established.³⁶

Whether the Keishi-chō's leaders believed that over time their organization would move closer toward the patterns of its French model is not clear, although the 1877 regulation institutionalizing the collection of information on European police systems suggests that they hoped it would.

IV. Forty Years After: A Comparison in 1914

To follow the complex interactions between the Keishi-chō and its environment throughout the Meiji period is beyond the scope of this article. But one means of assessing those interactions is to compare the Keishi-chō with its Paris counterpart in 1914, on the eve of World War I—a major turning point in social and institutional developments in both societies.

In both cities the four decades had been eventful ones, bringing new technologies of communication and of transportation; increasing numbers of banks, commercial establishments, and factories; increasing population density—all of which meant increasing demands on the multi-functional police. Yet even after four decades the kinship between the two systems remained evident. The Keishi-chō still closely resembled the Paris police in its range of functions, its pattern of financial resource acquisition, its formal-regulatory structure, its administrative structure, and the centrality

36. Baron Kanetake Ōura, "The Police of Japan," in Okuma Shigenobu, ed., *Fifty Years of New Japan* Vol. 1 (London: Smith Elder & Co., 1910), p. 293. The school referred to is not the Tokyo school of 1880, but the national officers' training school (the *Keikan Renshūjo*) set up in 1884. Although the putative author of the article was an officer of the Keishi-chō from its inception through 1882, he makes no mention of what was in reality Japan's—and the world's—first police school.

of the organizational and political role of the chief of the organization.

A comparison of the organizational charts of the police departments of the European capitals (made possible by a study conducted in 1913–14 by an American police expert, Raymond Fosdick) with that of the Keishi-chō indicates clearly the structural kinship:³⁷ the functional divisions of the Paris and Tokyo organizations resemble each other more closely than those of any other pair of departments. To spot such a similarity, however, would have taken the eye of a police administrator. More visible to the public view, and undoubtedly more significant for police development, was the continuing legacy of relationships with external control structures and of financing.

In both systems there was a direct relationship between the chief of the capital's police and that head of the government (the Prime Minister in Japan, the President in France), based on the former's responsibility for political policing. This link bypassed the ministry charged with the formal control of the police (the Home Ministry in Japan, the Ministry of the Interior in France). The strains thus created did not often rise to public notice, but they drew the police structures of the capitals and their officials deeply into the politics of the national government.³⁸

Another and more open area of strain emerged between the municipal government of the capital and the police. In both cities the local government had to furnish a considerable portion of the police budget without having any formal control over police activities. The tense relationship between the Keishi-chō and the Tokyo municipal government is attested to by the Keishi-chō's official history,³⁹ and in Paris, the relationship between the Paris Council and the Prefecture of Police was so hostile by 1914 that the Council had refused for three consecutive years to vote approval of its share of the police budget until forced to do so by the national government.⁴⁰

Still another common area of tension in the two cities was the relationship between the police and the populace. The multiple functions of the police meant that the police were a ubiquitous

37. Systematic organizational charts are given in Fosdick's *European Police Systems* for London (p. 100), Berlin (p. 110), Vienna (p. 120), and Paris (p. 126). The Keishi-chō's organizational chart is given in KCS, in a non-paginated appendix.

38. Ono Tatsuzō, *Nihon no seiji keisatsu* (Shin Nihon shuppansha, 1973), pp. 59–60.

39. KCS, p. 486.

40. Fosdick, *European Police Systems*, p. 91.

presence in both cities, and their activities reached deeply into the lives of average citizens. In Tokyo this extended to twice-yearly supervision of housecleaning (from 1904 on) and the enforcement of regulations against minors smoking tobacco (from 1900).⁴¹ Moreover, both Paris and Tokyo were seen by their respective national governments in political terms as strategically important and potentially volatile centers, and political surveillance and control were given a high priority in both cities, exacerbating the tensions with the public.

Not surprisingly, the police were the focus of considerable popular resentment in both capitals, much more acutely than elsewhere in either country. Policemen and police stations were generally the first targets of the sporadic mob violence that recurred in both cities in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries.⁴² By 1914, however, the Paris police had made some attempts to downplay the visible importance of political policing which had been so pronounced and so resented a feature of its nineteenth century development.⁴³ In Tokyo, by contrast, political policing was being more openly institutionalized: in 1911 the Bureau of Higher Police (which meant political police) was augmented by the addition of the Bureau of Special Higher Police, which assumed responsibility for the more sensitive duties of political policing such as surveillance of publications. The significance of these changes lay rather in the contrasting direction of the formalization of political policing; in both cities the actual activities remained important (in Paris the political policing role was increasingly carried out through the use of paid informers).

To most observers in 1914, the differences between the police

41. Part of the explanation of the extensive functions performed by the Tokyo police lies in the timing of organizational development. In the administrative vacuum of the early years of the Meiji period, the Keishi-chō assumed a wide range of responsibilities from which the later-developing Tokyo-fu administration could scarcely dislodge it.

42. Particularly in the late Meiji period, Tokyo's citizens bore little resemblance to the common stereotype of the Japanese as orderly, law-abiding, and submissive to authority. Given a limited franchise and the reluctance of power-holders to concede a place to popular political parties, political and social discontents were translated with increasing frequency into direct protest in the parks and streets. The police not only had the difficult task of restoring order; as the most visible and accessible representatives of officialdom in Tokyo they were repeatedly direct targets of popular resentment. The most famous example occurred with the riots following the Portsmouth Treaty of 1905, when eight police stations and 226 police boxes were destroyed (KCS, p. 432).

43. Stead, *The Police of Paris*, pp. 151–152.

systems of the two capitals would undoubtedly have been more striking than the similarities. The contrasts were visual as well as organizational: whereas the Paris force “was organized with only a slight leaning toward military forms and traditions,”⁴⁴ the Tokyo police had become progressively more military in appearance and demeanor. The Tokyo uniforms had evolved from the vaguely military style of early Meiji (which resembled the uniform of the Parisian *gardien de paix*) to a uniform only barely distinguishable from that of the Japanese army, especially for upper-ranking officers. The increasingly precise regulation of salutes and demeanor and the emphasis in police schools on military drills had given the Tokyo policeman a soldierly appearance which was more like that of the Berlin police than that of the Paris force.⁴⁵

The density of police personnel was also different by 1914. One consequence of the strong identification of the Keishi-chō with the interests of the *hanbatsu* was that the national Diet fought against increasing its budget, and this meant that from 1890 on, the Keishi-chō faced the rapidly growing population of the capital with a force that was virtually unchanging in absolute size. By 1914, despite the image of a ubiquitous police presence in Tokyo, the number of policemen per 1,000 population was 1.91, well below that in Paris (2.98), and indeed that in any other major European capital (the ratio in Berlin was 3.08, in Moscow 2.93, and in London 2.84).⁴⁶

However, the density of police posts compensated for the lower density of police personnel. By 1914 the Paris police had 91 stations and fixed posts,⁴⁷ and the Tokyo police 858. This constituted an average of one police post for every 1.37 square miles in Paris, and one for every .88 square miles in Tokyo prefecture. The average, however, underestimates the urban density of posts in Tokyo, since they were concentrated in the city proper and not distributed evenly through the more than 752 square miles of the prefecture.

In Tokyo, therefore, each post was staffed with a very small

44. Fosdick, *European Police Systems*, p. 130.

45. This owed something to direct emulation of the Berlin police as well as to the emulation of the Japanese military. The staff of the first national Police Officers' Training School (established 1884) included two Prussian police officers, who emphasized military-style “spit-and-polish,” drills, and discipline. The organizational structure of the Keishi-chō was firmly established by the mid-1880s, and the Prussians had relatively little organizational impact on its formal structure, although their influence on the prefectural police was somewhat greater.

46. Fosdick, *European Police Systems*, pp. 411–412.

47. *Ibid.*, p. 131.

force, and this pattern was accompanied by much less functional specialization of roles than was the case in the much larger subunits of the Paris police. This lower degree of role specialization is probably the major factor in the striking difference in the size of the specialized detective forces of the two cities: there were over 750 detectives in the Paris force in 1914⁴⁸ compared to 193 in Tokyo (9 per cent of the total force in Paris compared to 3 per cent in Tokyo). The initial stages of criminal investigation were more frequently the responsibility of the base-level police force in Tokyo.

The wider variety of tasks for which the base-level patrolman was responsible was a factor in the continuing superiority of recruit training in Tokyo. By 1914 a training school for recruits to the force had been set up in Paris: it was housed in two or three rooms of the central headquarters, and recruits attended three hours of classes there a day during the first four months of their employment with the force.⁴⁹ A contemporary observer describes the course as follows:

Adapted only to immediately practical ends, and organized so as not to interfere with the regular work of the recruits, the course of the Paris school is plain and simple The work consists of a course on the proper method of writing reports, together with lectures on the subject of emergencies, arrests, fires, and the general behavior of policemen.⁵⁰

The Tokyo school, with its own building and staff, provided a full-time two-month course for recruits. Classes were given in police procedure, police regulations, criminal law and procedure, martial arts, and proper police behavior.⁵¹ Thus the higher level of demands placed on base-level patrolmen, a factor which had stimulated the initial move to formal recruit training on the military model in Tokyo, continued to produce a greater reliance on such training. Paris relied more on functional specialization and differential career paths. Thus the contrasting organizational patterns which emerged in the early years of the *Keishi-chō* were clearly institutionalized by 1914: Tokyo developed a pattern of a high degree of spatial dispersion, a low degree of role specialization, and a high level of basic training. This contrasted with the Paris pattern of a lower degree of spatial dispersion, a high level of role specialization, and reliance on differential career paths.

48. *Ibid.*, p. 287.

49. *Ibid.*, p. 225.

50. *Ibid.*, p. 218.

51. Asakura Haruhiko, ed., *Meiji kansei jiten* (Tokyo-do Shuppan, 1969), p. 308.

Police training is not the only area in which the Keishi-chō had by 1914 outdistanced not only its Paris model but also most Western police organizations. The closely related area of police professionalization is a second. Professionalization can be defined in terms of at least three elements: specialized formal training and accreditation; the articulation of a public service ethic; and the creation of a professional subculture reinforced by a professional association, professional conferences to pool information and disseminate new knowledge, and a specialized professional literature of journals and books. The first two had characterized the Keishi-chō virtually since its inception; the third had clearly emerged by the beginning of the twentieth century.

In this area the Keishi-chō's development was inextricably bound to that of the Japanese police as a whole. The Keishi-chō had provided most of the high-ranking officers for the development of the prefectural police in the early 1880s, and regular national and regional conferences of high-ranking police officials had begun at that time. In 1900 the national *Keisatsu Kyōkai* (Police Association) was founded, apparently at the suggestion of the chief of the Keishi-chō, who became its President.⁵² It bore all the hallmarks of the professional association: its formal goals were to encourage the improvement of knowledge and expertise among policemen and to improve the welfare of its members. All police officers and patrolmen in the country were members, paying annual dues that subsidized a regular magazine and other publications, lectures, conferences, martial arts tournaments, and compensation payments for policemen killed or disabled in the course of duty.

By 1914, the *Keisatsu Kyōkai* had added to its activities the support of a national institute for training police officers. From 1884 to 1889, and again from 1899 to 1904, the national government had financed such a facility in Tokyo, but both had been closed for financial reasons, the second because of the budgetary strain on the national treasury imposed by the Russo-Japanese War. In the anti-police climate produced by the heavy-handed police actions in the Tokyo riots which had followed the publication of the peace treaty, the government was unwilling to ask the Diet for funds to reopen it. The *Keisatsu Kyōkai*, in the belief that a national training school for officers was a necessity, undertook to set up and support the training institute by raising its dues and imposing a charge for its magazine. The *Kyōkai* maintained this institute from 1909 to 1918, until the

52. Takahashi Yūzo, *Meiji keisatsu shi kenkyū* 4, p. 465.

national government assumed the financial burden; over 1,600 officers were graduated there during that decade.⁵³

Such a degree of commitment to professional training had no parallel in the West, either then or later. Police reformers in the United States and the United Kingdom, and even in Europe, advocated the professionalization of the police as a strategy for increasing their effectiveness, lowering corruption levels, and freeing the police from undue political and social pressures.⁵⁴ None seem to have been aware of the extent of police professionalization in Japan—unfortunately, since it could have provided an instructive study.

Police professionalization in Japan had some of the consequences desired by Western police reformers. It was a means of reducing turnover in the force and of improving police standards of performance without a marked increase in expenditures, and it facilitated the standardization of police practice throughout the country. However, it had other, unanticipated consequences: it increased the autonomy of the police force, it reduced its responsiveness to its social environment, and it reinforced the social distance between the policeman and the public. Police professionalization was by no means the only variety for which the “public service” ideals did not necessarily translate into service to individuals.

Police professionalization in Tokyo was patently not derived from a foreign model. It was the consequence of the emergent conditions of organizational development in Meiji Japan, strongly influenced by military and civil service professionalization. That professionalization, like other emergent aspects of the Tokyo police, was integrated into an organizational form that owed much to its foreign model, but which developed distinctive features in its new environment, and which in some aspects proceeded more rapidly down the same paths of development.

V. The Impact on the Environment

The evaluation of the role of the Keishi-chō in Meiji society has for the most part been negative. The reasons are not hard to identify. David Bayley’s characterization of the public image of the French police could serve equally well as a description of the Tokyo force for which they were the model:

53. Takahashi Yūzo, *Meiji keisatsu shi kenkyū* 1, pp. 232–247.

54. See for example Samuel Walker, *A Critical History of Police Reform* (Lexington, Mass: D.C. Heath and Co., 1977).

The French police have a reputation for being efficient, indefatigable, and omniscient. They are considered individually to be brusque and rather unapproachable. They are armed, feared and disliked, though they are not considered especially corrupt.⁵⁵

Popular dislike was exacerbated by the Keishi-chō's role in political surveillance and control: in the area of popular political organizations, they were unquestionably an "organization-suppressing organization," which worked to retard the development and growth of effective organizations of political participation. And although they were not personally corrupt, their role in questionable election practices, particularly in the 1890s, blackened their claims to be moral exemplars. It is worth emphasizing that in suppressing popular political organizations, labor organizations, and the press, the Japanese police were following a role built into the definition of the police in the Continental model, although they may well have defined the parameters of permissible behavior and organization in these areas more narrowly than their European counterparts. Given the range of available Western models and the nature of the Japanese political scene at the time of the establishment of the Keishi-chō, this role was perhaps inevitable.

This negative (in the sense of organization-suppressing) role of the Keishi-chō persisted more powerfully in Meiji Tokyo than that of the Prefecture of Police in the Paris of the Third Republic because of the relatively late development of countervailing organizations in Japan. The early consolidation of the Keishi-chō meant that later developing organizations—such as the municipal government and the judicial system—had to struggle to establish themselves and to wrest from the Keishi-chō some of the functions it monopolized early in its existence.

From the viewpoint of the central government, however, the Keishi-chō was an invaluable agent of social control, particularly in the early years of the Meiji period. In the disturbances of the 1870s and early 1880s, the Tokyo police constituted a control force for suppressing rebellion and unrest that was both better-disciplined and more reliable than the conscript army; it was used as such not only within Tokyo but throughout the country.⁵⁶ Its capacity for

55. David Bayley, "The Police and Political Development in Europe," p. 337.

56. For example, in 1876 troops of Keishi-chō policemen were dispatched to deal with the unrest in Kumamoto, Hagi, Chiba, and areas of the Chūgoku. In the Satsuma Rebellion, of course, over 5,000 Tokyo policemen were direct participants in the military campaign, and hundreds of others were dispatched to pacify the region.

information-gathering (the result of its penetration into the neighborhoods and the variety of information-collecting activities assigned it) made it capable of preventing disorders as well as of suppressing them. One would-be conspirator, for example, was apprehended in 1874 when a pawnshop in Tokyo, in accordance with Keishi-chō regulations, reported to the police his redemption of his pawned swords.⁵⁷

Even for the general populace, the information-processing capabilities of the Keishi-chō had some advantages: it was the chief disseminator of public health information and the enforcement agent of public health regulations and quarantine. The Tokyo police cultivated their role as information-brokers: from 1884, for example, weather reports were posted daily outside police stations and boxes, as an inducement for citizens to read the adjacent police notices.

One of the most visible and enduring effects of the Keishi-chō on the social and political environment of Meiji Japan, however, was its role as an organizational model for the prefectural police. As the largest police organization in the country (in 1881 it contained 20 per cent of Japan's policemen) and as a major source of police officers for the developing prefectural police organizations, the Keishi-chō provided a natural model. In part the emulation was voluntary, as in the area of police training: police schools on the Tokyo model were established in six prefectures before they were made compulsory for all in 1885.⁵⁸ More often it was the result of Home Ministry fiat, which used the Keishi-chō as the prototype in which to construct the control system and the regulations for what was in effect a standardized national police force, with the prefecture the unit of organization, as Tokyo-fu was for the Keishi-chō. As a result, in this area of police development there was considerable departure from European models: the prefectural police structures were much more highly standardized and centralized than their European counterparts.

The Keishi-chō also served, interestingly enough, as a model for the police of Imperial China in the first decade of the twentieth century; the Chinese sent police officers to Japan to study Keishi-chō practices and organization and to study in the police school.⁵⁹ There is no evidence that Western police forces monitored devel-

57. Keisatsu seido chōsakai, *Keisatsu seido hyakunen shi* (Tokyo: Keisatsu seido chōsakai, 1974), p. 273.

58. They were Kyoto, Saitama, Wakayama, Fukushima, Nagano, and Hyogo.

59. Baron Kanetake Ōura, "The Police of Japan," pp. 294–295.

opments in the Japanese police until our own day, when the police have joined the ranks of Japanese organizations which are held up as models for America.⁶⁰ Interestingly enough, many of the distinctive features of the Tokyo police admired by Western observers—the spatial dispersion provided by the police boxes, the high visibility of the police in community life, the reliance on formal training, the high degree of professionalization—were already strongly in evidence by the end of the Meiji period.

VI. The Keishi-chō as a Case of Organizational Development

Of greater general interest is the fact that in the Meiji Keishi-chō we can recognize several features of “Japanese-style organization” as it has come to be defined during the last two decades: the emphasis on generalists rather than specialists; a reliance on formal intra-organizational training both to provide needed skills and to inculcate certain attitudes toward the organization and the individual’s role in it; the standardized, “rational” structure of bureaus and sections. That these features should appear so early and so markedly in an organization specifically based on a Western model that provided no basis for such patterns is highly suggestive.

Most of the state organizations of Meiji Japan were, like the Keishi-chō, based on specific Western models which provided the patterns of acquiring and allocating needed resources, the range of functions, and the general configurations of administration which linked the organization to others in the state system. However, the Japanese organizations exhibited certain departures from their Western models that clustered on the critically important dimension of internal coordination and control. This encompasses such features as the socialization of individuals into organizational roles, the spatial dispersion of subunits, the level of specialization, and the structure of the hierarchy of offices, on which Japanese state organizations tended to exhibit certain patterns in common, regardless of specific organizational functions.

Did such organizational patterns originate in the samurai bureaucracies which were the common ancestors of Meiji state organizations, or were they emergent properties of Meiji organiza-

60. See, for example, Ezra Vogel, *Japan as Number One: Lessons for America* (Cambridge, Mass: Harvard University Press, 1979), pp. 204–222; David Bayley, *Forces of Order: Police Behavior in Japan and the United States* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1976).

tional development? In the development of the Keishi-chō, both influences were clearly involved. Among the principal legacies of samurai organization was a reliance—although by no means an exclusive reliance—on normative sanctions and on socialization through formal and generalist education as a basis for organizational control. But the specific structures through which this general pattern was institutionalized in the Keishi-chō were clearly drawn from the modern Army. This transfer of patterns from one organization to another was accomplished largely through the transfer of organizational leaders: the first Tokyo police school, established by the former head of the Army's *Shikan Gakkō*, and the national and prefectural police schools of the 1880s set up at the urging of Yamagata Aritomo provide the clearest examples of this.

A single case study cannot of course establish explanations of general patterns; it can only suggest them, and raise the inevitable call for more extensive studies to test their utility and increase their precision. The case of the Keishi-chō suggests the following hypotheses about Meiji organizational development:

- (1) The “organizational map” of Meiji Japan—that is, the types of organizations and the range of functions performed by each—was fundamentally shaped by the organizational configurations of Western societies, especially France, England, and Germany in the 1870s and early 1880s. Western models provided the definition of organizational functions, the patterns of acquiring and utilizing resources, and basic definitions of organizational roles for nearly all state organizations and a wide range of private-sector organizations.
- (2) The departures from Western models clustered on the dimension of internal organizational coordination and control.
- (3) The influence of samurai organizational patterns on Meiji institutions was important, but not all patterns contributed to that influence; those which had a lasting impact were patterns legitimated and given specific form by new, Western-modeled organizations. (For example, the practice of appointing multiple incumbents to a post was a control strategy that quickly disappeared; the reliance on age cohorts in shaping patterns of internal control and upward mobility survived and became generalized, legitimated by the modern Army.)
- (4) The emergence of common patterns of coordination and control across organizations owed much to the transfer of personnel among the developing systems. More specifically, the role played by the transfer of military officers into the administration

of non-military systems had a crucial impact on the development of Meiji organizational patterns. Finally, the case of the Keishi-chō provides further evidence that the search for the roots of "Japanese-style management"—by which is meant the patterns of organizational coordination and control—should be directed to the development of Meiji state organizations.

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